Keys and Addresses

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Anonymous Transactions

Alice wants to pay Bob via Bitcoin, and she wants the Bitcoin system to ensure that:

- Bitcoin full nodes can verify her transaction.
- This transaction should not be tied to either her or Bob's real-world identity.
- Bob can further spend the bitcoins he receives.

Anonymous Transactions

The original Bitcoin paper describes a very simple scheme for achieving those goals:

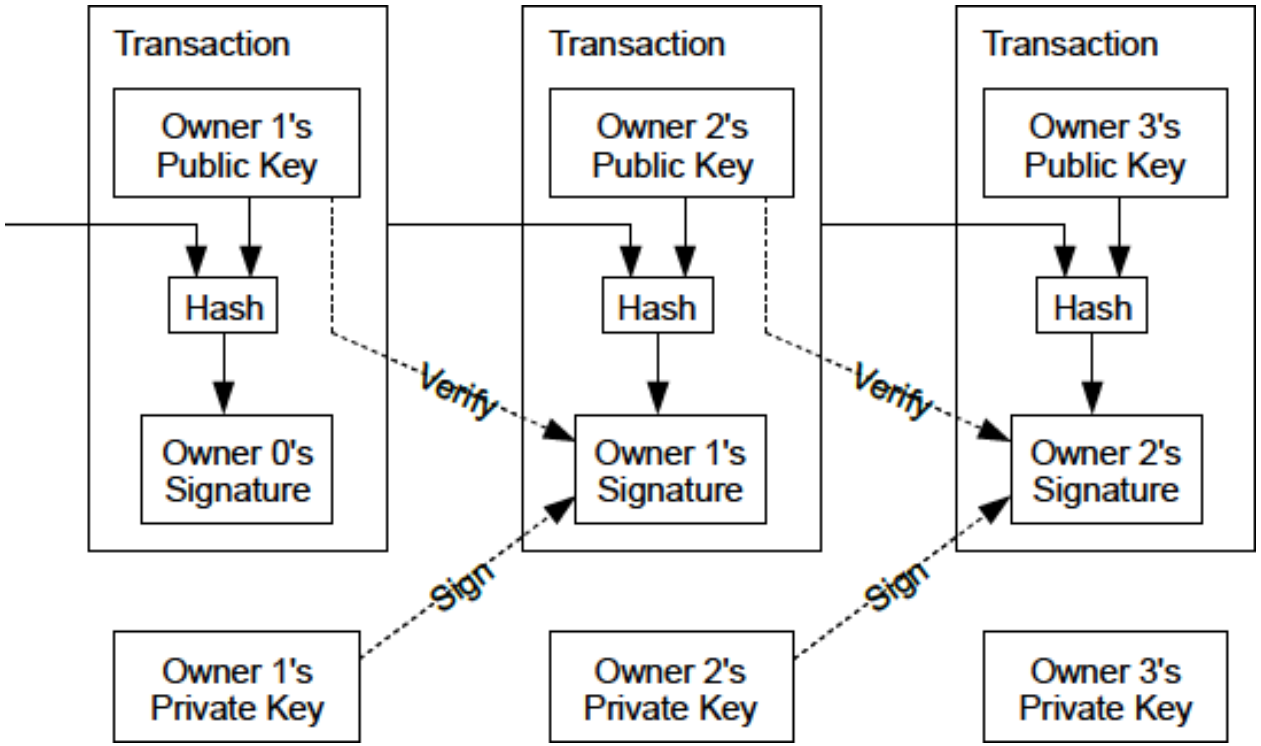


Figure 1: Transaction chain from original Bitcoin paper
Nakamoto, Satoshi, and A. Bitcoin. "A peer-to-peer electronic cash system." Bitcoin.–URL: https://bitcoin. org/bitcoin. pdf 4.2 (2008): 15.

Anonymous Transactions

Bob accepts bitcoins to a public key (Owner 3's Public Key) in a transaction that is signed by Alice (Owner 2's Signature).

The bitcoins that Alice is spending had been previously received to one of her public keys (Owner 2's Public Key) and she uses the corresponding private key (Owner 2's Private Key) to generate her signature.

We'll examine public keys, private keys, signatures, and hash functions in this section, and then use all of them together to describe the addresses used by modern Bitcoin software.

Public Key Cryptography

Public key cryptography was invented in the 1970s and is a mathematical foundation for modern computer and information security.

Bitcoin use public key cryptography to create **a key pair** that consists of a private key and a public key.

The **public key** is used to **receive funds**, and the **private key** is used to **sign transactions** to spend the funds.

There is a mathematical relationship between the public and the private key that allows the private key to be used to generate **signatures** on messages. These signatures can be validated against the public key **without revealing the private key**.

Illustration: PGP Tool Desktop, PGP Tool Online

Private Keys

A private key is simply **a number**, picked at **random**.

The public key can be calculated from the private key, so some Bitcoin wallets only store the private key.

We pick a **256 bits random number** for private key, so the private key can be any number in decimal between 0 and $n - 1$, where $n = 1.1578 \times 10^{77}$ (slightly less than 2^{256}).

The size of Bitcoin's private key space ($2^{256} \approx 10^{77}$) is an unfathomably large number. For comparison, the visible universe is estimated to contain 10^{80} atoms.

Public Keys

The public key is calculated from the private key using **elliptic curve** multiplication, which is irreversible: $K = k \times G$, where k is the private key, G is a constant point called the *generator point*, and K is the resulting public key.

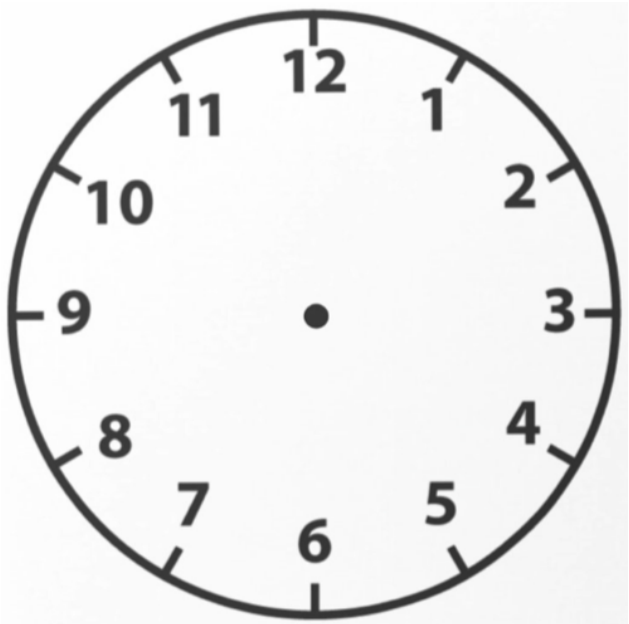
The advantage of public key cryptography is that calculating k if you know K is as difficult as trying all possible values of k (i.e., a brute-force search).

To illustrate how public key cryptography works, we need to first understand what is **elliptic curve cryptography**. Before that, we need to talk about the concept of **finite field**.

I. Finite Field

Clock Math

Q: Does it make sense to do arithmetic using just the 12 numbers on the clock?



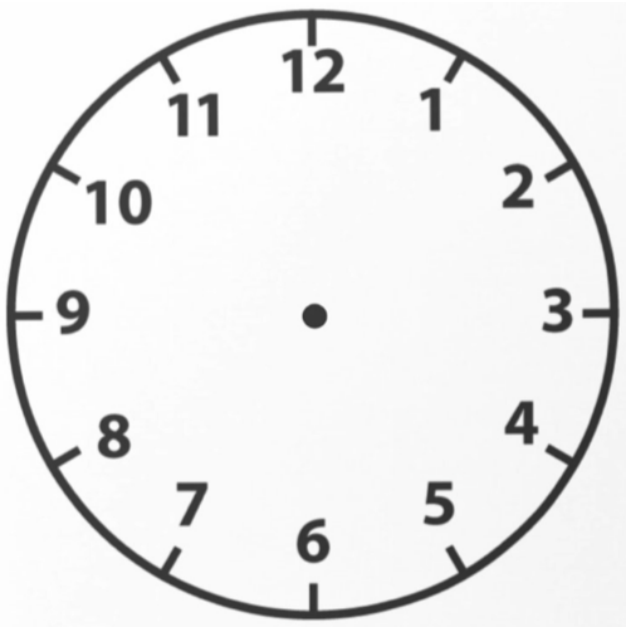
Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

Let's try some basics.

$8 + 8 = ?$
$5 + 5 + 5 + 5 + 5 = ?$

So, **addition** seems to work.

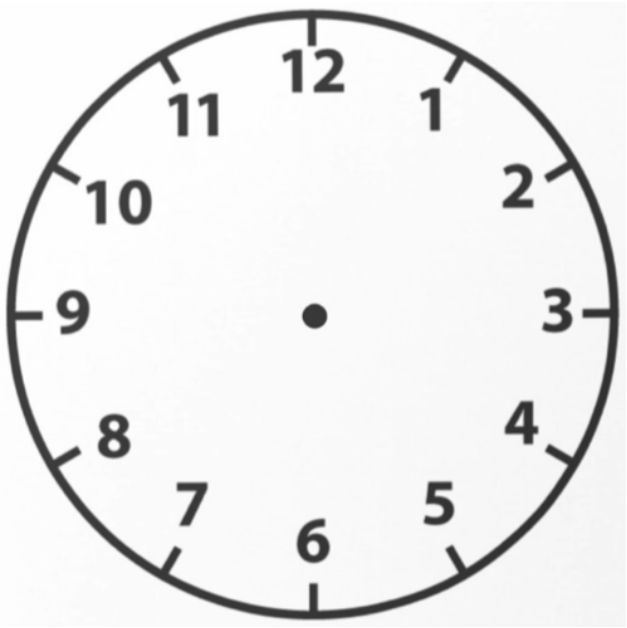


Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

And it plays nicely with **subtraction**:

$$8 + 6 = 2$$
$$8 = 2 - 6$$
$$6 = 2 - 8$$



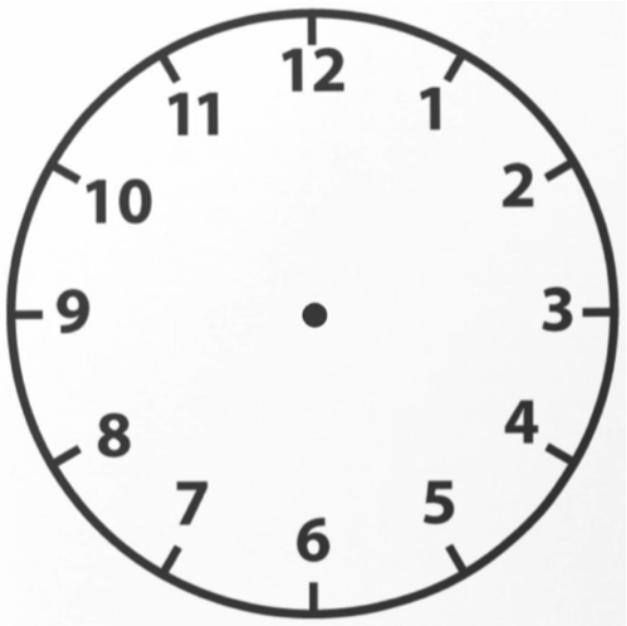
Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

In "clock arithmetic", what's 5×5?

Remember $5+5+5+5+5=1$?
Then $5 \times 4 =$?

It seems like **multiplication** also works.

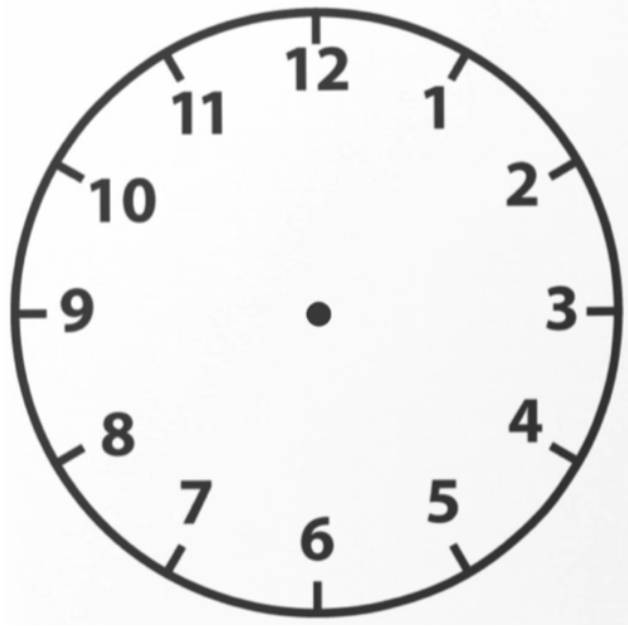


Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

Let's make a multiplication table...

x	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
1	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
2	2	4	6	8	10	12	2	4	6	8	10	12
3	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12
4	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12
5	5	10	3	8	1	6	11	4	9	2	7	12
6	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12
7	7	2	9	4	11	6	1	8	3	10	5	12
8	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12
9	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12
10	10	8	6	4	2	12	10	8	6	4	2	12
11	11	10	9	8	7	6	5	4	3	2	1	12
12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12



Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

We call 1 the "multiplicative identity", and 12 the "additive identity" (like 0 in normal arithmetic).

Clock Math

How about clock division?

What is 8 divided by 4 in "clock arithmetic"?

Looking for x to satisfy $4x = 8$...

x	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
1	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
2	2	4	6	8	10	12	2	4	6	8	10	12
3	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12
4	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12
5	5	10	3	8	1	6	11	4	9	2	7	12
6	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12
7	7	2	9	4	11	6	1	8	3	10	5	12
8	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12
9	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12
10	10	8	6	4	2	12	10	8	6	4	2	12
11	11	10	9	8	7	6	5	4	3	2	1	12
12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12

Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

How about clock division?

$4x = 8$ has three solutions (2, 5, and 8).

Also $4x = 1$ has no solutions.

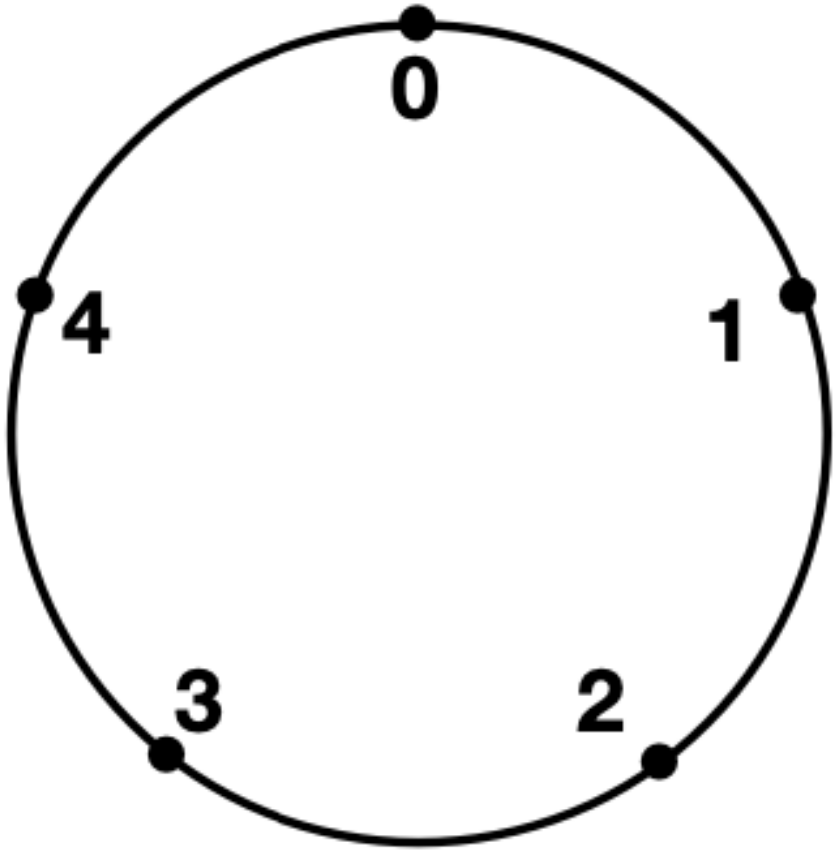
x	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
1	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
2	2	4	6	8	10	12	2	4	6	8	10	12
3	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12	3	6	9	12
4	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12	4	8	12
5	5	10	3	8	1	6	11	4	9	2	7	12
6	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12	6	12
7	7	2	9	4	11	6	1	8	3	10	5	12
8	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12	8	4	12
9	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12	9	6	3	12
10	10	8	6	4	2	12	10	8	6	4	2	12
11	11	10	9	8	7	6	5	4	3	2	1	12
12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12	12

Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Clock Math

Can we make "clock arithmetic" work with a different size of clock?

Yes! **Prime-sized clocks** are what we are looking for. We call them **fields**.



Source: Risc Zero - Study Club: Introduction to Finite Fields

Concept of Field

In mathematics, a **field** is a set equipped with two operations: addition and multiplication. And it has the following properties:

1. Closure

- **Closure under Addition**: For any two elements a and b in the field, their sum $a + b$ is also an element of the field.
- **Closure under Multiplication**: For any two elements a and b in the field, their product $a \times b$ is also an element of the field.

Concept of Field

2. Associativity

- **Associativity of Addition**: For all elements a, b, and c in the field, $(a + b) + c = a + (b + c)$.
- **Associativity of Multiplication**: For all elements a, b, and c in the field, $(a \times b) \times c = a \times (b \times c)$.

3. Commutativity

- **Commutativity of Addition**: For all elements a and b in the field, $a + b = b + a$.
- **Commutativity of Multiplication**: For all elements a and b in the field, $a \times b = b \times a$.

Concept of Field

4. Identity Elements

- **Additive Identity**: There exists an element, denoted 0, in the field such that for any element a in the field, $a + 0 = a$.
- **Multiplicative Identity**: There exists an element, denoted 1, in the field such that for any element a in the field, $a \times 1 = a$, and $1 \neq 0$.

5. Inverses

- **Additive Inverse**: For each element a in the field, there exists an element $-a$ (the additive inverse of a) such that $a + (-a) = 0$.
- **Multiplicative Inverse**: For each non-zero element a in the field, there exists an element a^{-1} (the multiplicative inverse of a) such that $a \times a^{-1} = 1$.

Concept of Field

6. Distributivity
Multiplication distributes over addition, meaning for all elements a, b, and c in the field, $a \times (b + c) = (a \times b) + (a \times c)$.

7. Non-zero Element Behavior
The set of non-zero elements of the field forms a **multiplicative group**, meaning every non-zero element has an inverse with respect to multiplication.

Examples of Fields

- **Real Numbers** ($\mathbb{R}$)
- **Complex Numbers** ($\mathbb{C}$)
- **Finite Fields**: Fields with a finite number of elements, such as $\mathbb{F}_p$ (integers modulo a prime p).

Finite Field

Q: Why do we need to define a finite field in computer cryptography?

(hint: overflow and underflow)

Finite Field

Q: Why do we need to define a finite field in computer cryptography?

Computers store numbers using a fixed number of bits. This limitation means there's a max/min value that can be represented.

Overflow: Imagine you have a system that can only store numbers up to 255 (an 8-bit unsigned integer). If you try to calculate 250 + 10, the result is 260. Since this is larger than 255, an overflow occurs. The computer might "wrap around" the result, leading to incorrect and unpredictable behavior in a cryptographic algorithm.

Underflow: This is the opposite problem. If a calculation results in a number that is too close to zero for the computer to represent accurately, it might be rounded down to zero.

Finite Field

In math notation a finite field set looks like:

$$\mathbb{F}_p = \{0, 1, 2, ..., p-1\}$$

where $\mathbb{F}_p$ is called "field of p" and $\{0, 1, 2, ..., p-1\}$ are the elements of the set.

The tool we can use to make a finite field closed under addition, subtraction, multiplication, and division is something called **modulo arithmetic**.

Finite Field in Python

- Modulo Operation in Python

  $7\%3$, $7\%3.0$, $-27\%13$, $12.5\%3$

- Finite Field Addition and Subtraction

  $\mathbb{F}_{57}$: $44+33$, $9-29$, $17+42+49$, $52-30-38$

- Finite Field Multiplication

  $\mathbb{F}_{97}$: $95\times 45\times 31$, $17\times 13\times 19\times 44$, $12^7\times 77^{49}$

Finite Field Division

In normal math, division is the inverse of multiplication: $7 \times 8 = 56$ implies that $56/8 = 7$.

We can use the above definition to help us understand finite field division. In $\mathbb{F}_{19}$, we know that:

$$3 \cdot_f 7 = 21\%19 = 2 \text{ implies that } 2/_f 7 = 3$$

Now you may ask yourself that, how do I calculate $2/_f 7$ if I don't know beforehand that $3 \cdot_f 7 = 2$?

Great question! And we should introduce **Fermat's Little Theorem**.

Fermat's Little Theorem

The theorem tells us that:

$$n^{(p-1)} \% p = 1 \text{ where } p \text{ is prime.}$$
$$n^{-1} \% p = n^{(p-2)} \% p \text{ where } p \text{ is prime.}$$

Now can you figure out how to calculate:

$\mathbb{F}_{19}$: 2/7 or 7/5?

Finite Field with a Prime Number Order

Extra Q: Why the order of a finite field is always a prime number?

II. Elliptic Curves

Elliptic Curve Definition

An elliptic curve is typically defined by an equation of the following form:

$$y^2 = x^3 + ax + b$$

where a and b are constants.

Q: can we call this equation a function?

Point Addition

A point A on the elliptic curve is represented as $A = (x_A, y_A)$. The set of points on the curve includes a special point called the **infinity point**, denoted as O (or I). The infinity point O is not visible on the plot.

Point addition is that we can do an operation on two of the points on the elliptic curve and get a third point, which is also on the curve.

Point addition satisfies certain properties:

- **identity**: O + A = A
- **invertibility**: A + (-A) = O
- **commutativity**: A + B = B + A
- **associativity**: (A + B) + C = A + (B + C)

Point Addition

To add two points A and B on the elliptic curve, the following rules apply:

Case 1: A and B are distinct

- **Slope Calculation:** Calculate the slope m of the line passing through points A and B:

$$m = \frac{y_B - y_A}{x_B - x_A}, \quad (x_A \neq x_B)$$

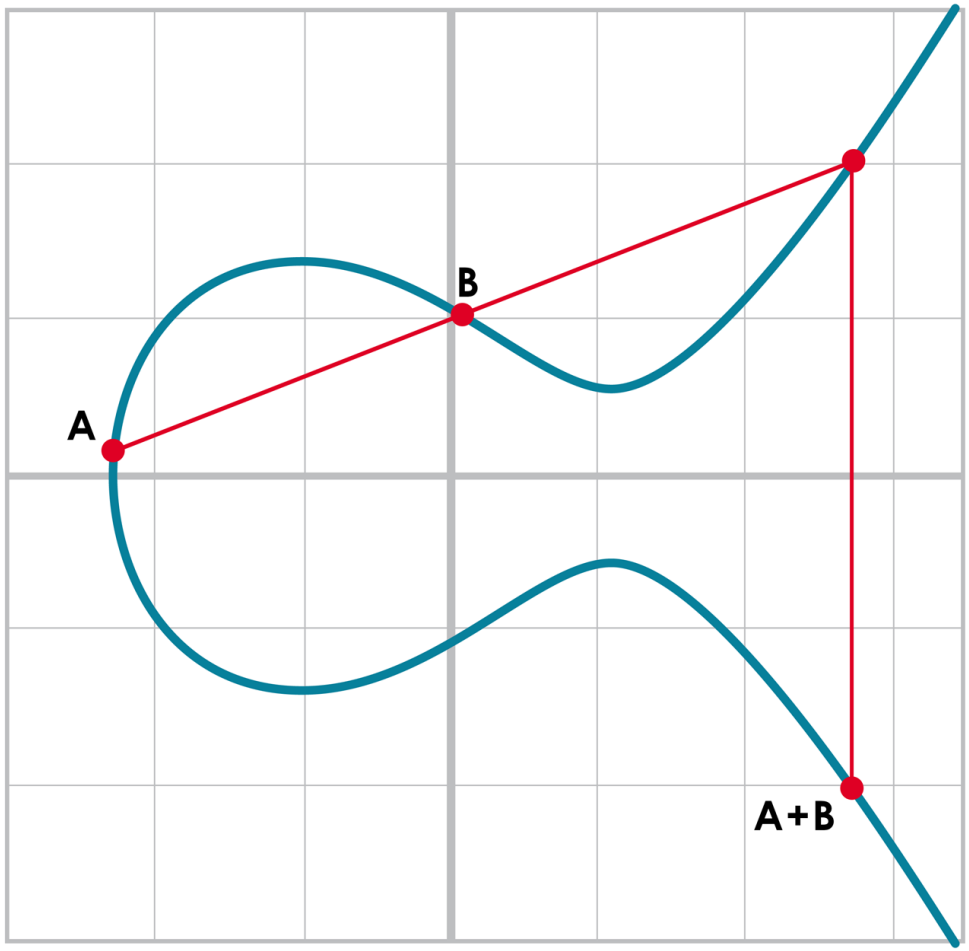
- **New Point Calculation:** The coordinates of the sum $C = A + B$ are given by:

$$x_C = m^2 - x_A - x_B$$

$$y_C = m(x_A - x_C) - y_A$$

Geometric Illustration

Case 1:



Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Point Addition

Case 2: $A = B$ (Point Doubling)

If A and B are the same point, the process is slightly different:

- **Slope Calculation:** The slope m is calculated using the derivative of the curve at that point:

$$m = \frac{3x_A^2 + a}{2y_A}, \quad (y_A \neq 0)$$

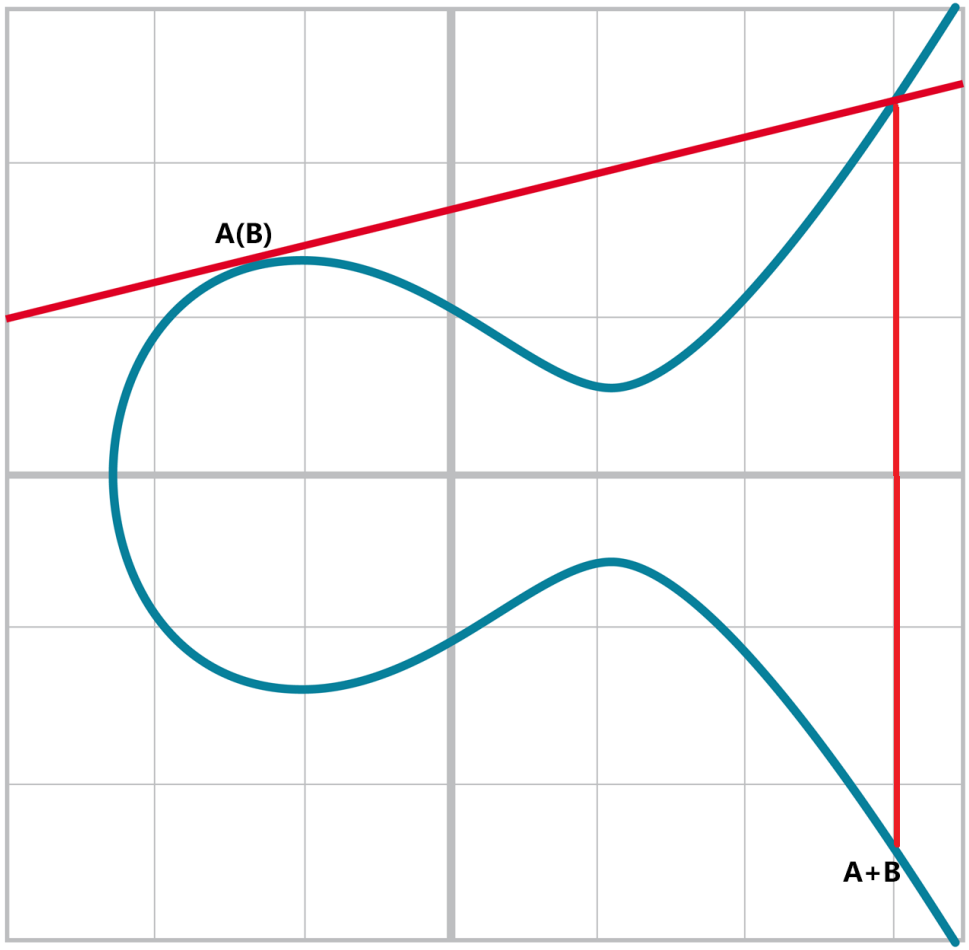
- **New Point Calculation:** The coordinates of the sum $C = A + A$ are:

$$x_C = m^2 - 2x_A$$

$$y_C = m(x_A - x_C) - y_A$$

Geometric Illustration

Case 2:



Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Point Addition

Case 3: A or B is the point at infinity O

If either A or B is the point at infinity, the result of the addition is simply the other point:

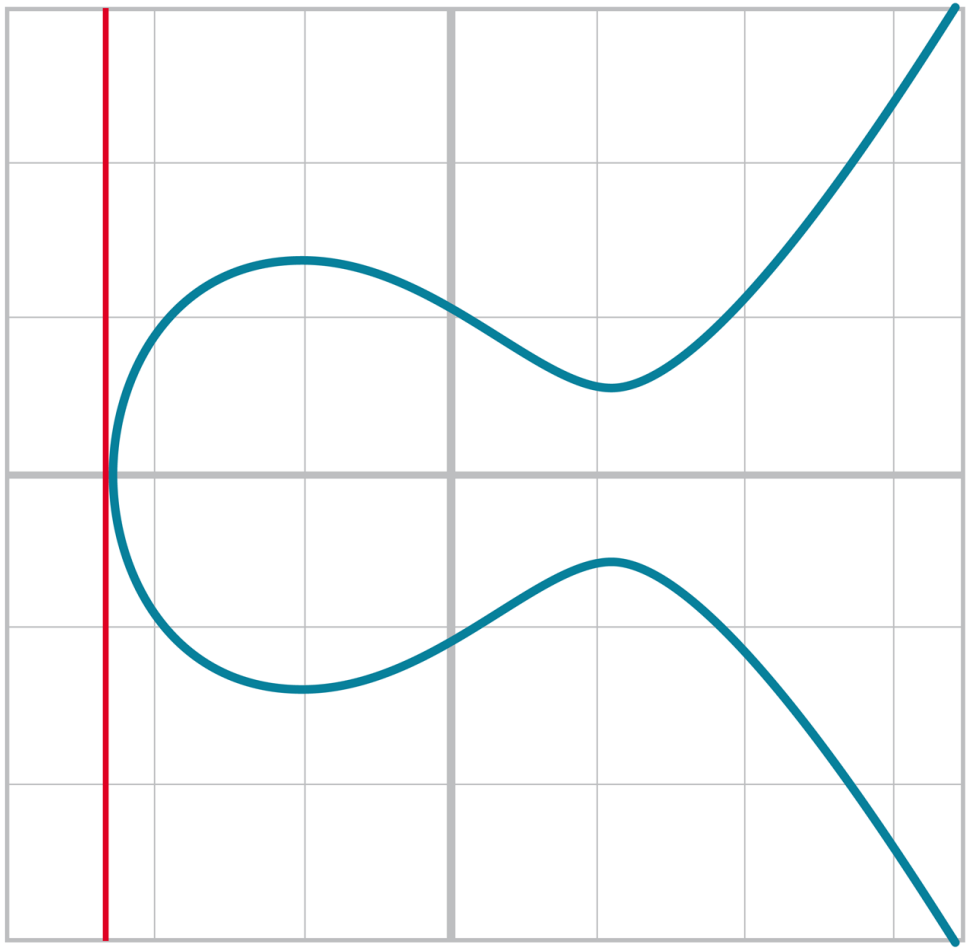
$$C = A + O = A$$

Special Cases:

- In Case 1, if $x_A = x_B$ and $y_A \neq y_B$, the slope is undefined, and we have: $C = A + B = O$
- In Case 2, if $y_A = 0$, the slope is undefined, and we have: $C = A + A = O$

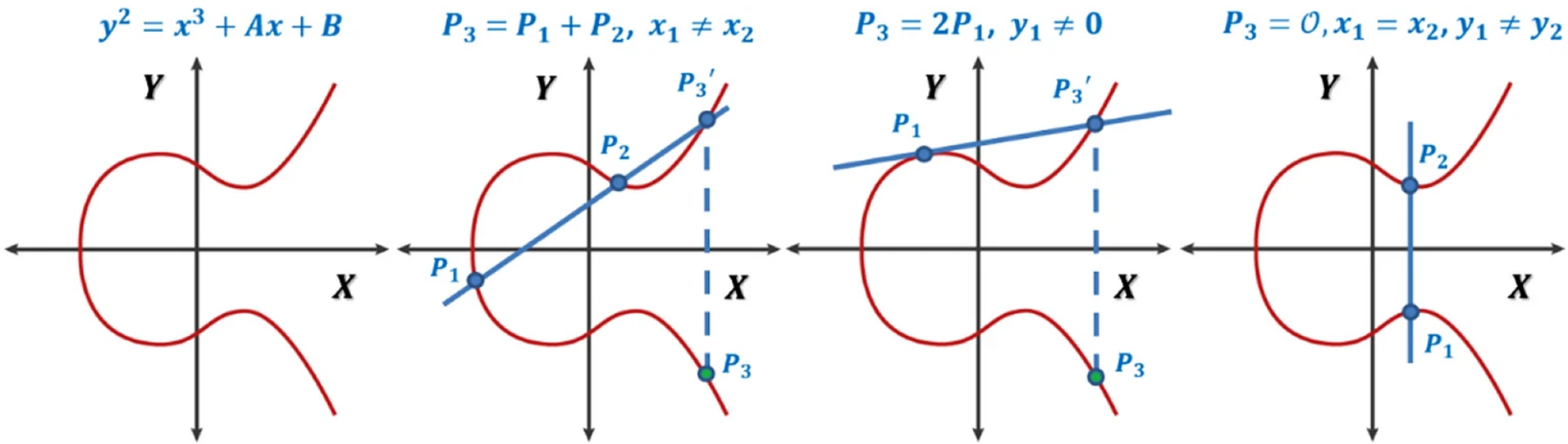
Geometric Illustration

Special Case 2:



Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Point Addition Summary



Source: AbdElHaleem, Sherif H., Salwa K. Abd-El-Hafiz, and Ahmed G. Radwan. "A generalized framework for elliptic curves based PRNG and its utilization in image encryption." Scientific Reports 12.1 (2022): 13278.

III. Elliptic Curves Cryptography

Elliptic Curves over Finite Fields

In part II, we discussed how to conduct appoint addition over real numbers. Now we will show that the point addition equations can also be used over the finite field discussed in part I.

However, in order to apply point addition on finite fields, we need to use the addition/subtraction as defined in part I.

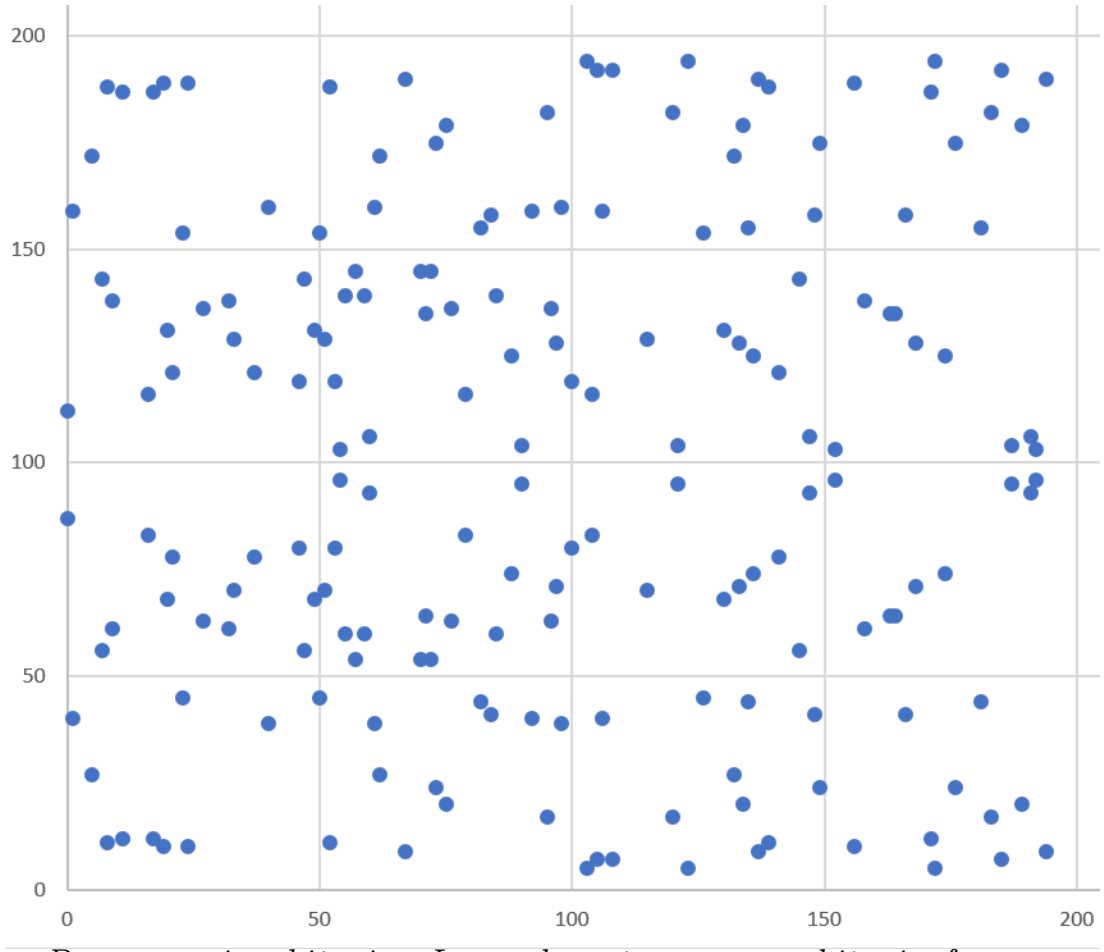
Example: define an elliptic curve over a finite field as $y^2 = x^3 + 7$ over F_{103}, check if the point $(17, 64)$ is on the curve.

$$y^2 = 64^2 \% 103 = 79$$
$$x^3 + 7 = (17^3 + 7) \% 103 = 79$$

Hence, $(17, 64)$ is on the curve.

Elliptic Curves over Finite Fields

The plot of an elliptic curve looks vastly different in a finite field.



Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Elliptic Curves over Finite Fields

What can we tell from the above graph?

It is very much a scattershot of points and there's no smooth curve here.

The only pattern is that the curve is symmetric right around the middle (because of the y^2 term).

The graph is not symmetric over the *x-axis* as in the curve over reals, but about halfway up the *y-axis* due to there not being negative numbers in a finite field.

Exercise: Evaluate whether these points are on the curve $y^2 = x^3 + 7$ over F_{223}: (192, 105), (17, 56), (200, 119), (1, 193), (42, 99)

Point Addition over Finite Fields

All of the equations we learned from part II work over finite fields.

Exercise:

For the curve $y^2 = x^3 + 7$ over F_{223}, find:

(170, 142) + (60, 139)

(47, 71) + (17, 56)

(143, 98) + (76, 66)

Scalar Multiplication for Elliptic Curves

Because we can add a point to itself, we can introduce some new notation:

$$(170, 142) + (170, 142) = 2 \cdot (170, 142)$$

This is what we call **scalar multiplication**. That is, we have a scalar number in front of the point. We can do this because we have defined point addition and point addition is associative.

One property of scalar multiplication is that **it's really hard to predict without calculating**.

Let's see a scalar multiplication graph in the next slide.

Scalar Multiplication for Elliptic Curves

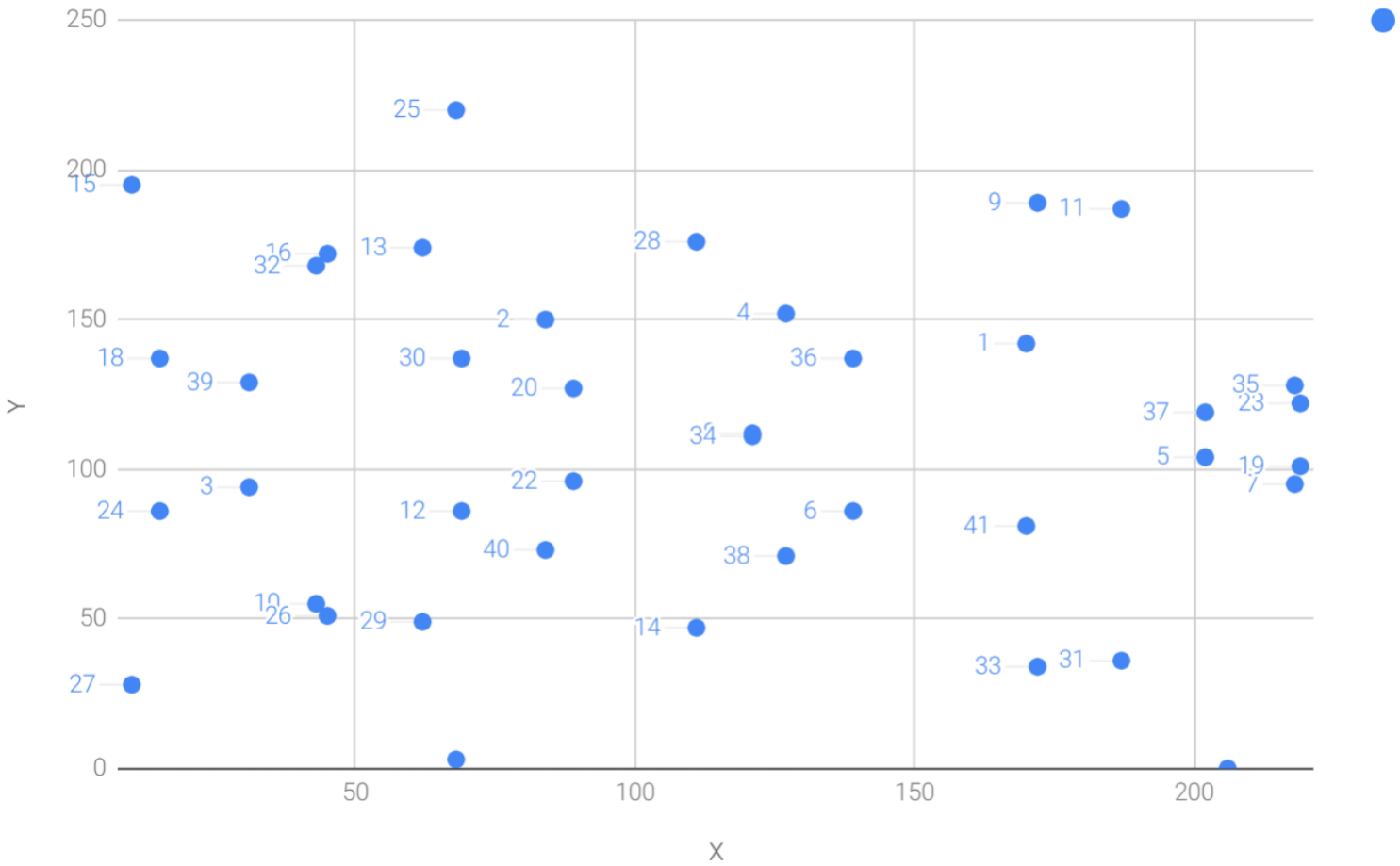


Figure 2: Scalar multiplication results for $y^2 = x^3 + 7$ over F_{223} for point (170,142)

Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Scalar Multiplication for Elliptic Curves

Discrete log problem: performing scalar multiplication is straightforward, but doing the opposite, point division, is not. Discrete log problem is the basis of elliptic curve cryptography. Origin of DLP

Another property of scalar multiplication is that **at a certain multiple, we get to the point at infinity** (remember the point at infinity is 0).

If we imagine a point G (e.g. (170, 142) in the above plot) and scalar-multiply until we get the point at infinity, we end up with a set:

$$\{G, 2G, 3G, 4G, ...nG\} \text{ where } nG = 0$$

This set is called a **group**, and because n is finite, we have a *finite group* (or more specifically, a *finite cyclic group*).

Group VS. Field

A **group** is a set of elements combined with a binary operation (e.g., addition or multiplication) that satisfies four key properties: closure, associativity, identity, and inverses.

A **field** is a more structured set with two operations: addition and multiplication. A field is essentially a system where both of these operations satisfy group-like properties, with a few more rules.

Elliptic curve cryptography is built on the **group** structure of elliptic curves, where addition operation is available. (Recall...we never mentioned point multiplication on elliptic curves.)

Extra: the Origin of the Discrete Log Problem

In the original form, the DLP asks:

Given a base element g in a finite cyclic group and a result q (which is the result of repeatedly multiplying g by itself some number of times), what is the integer k such that:

$$g^k = q \pmod{p}$$

where p is a prime and g is a generator of the group.

- In this setting, g is the known **generator** (or base), and q is the known result. The problem is to find k, which is called the **discrete logarithm** of q with respect to g.
- Finding k is computationally hard when the group is large, which is why DLP is important for cryptographic security.

Extra: the Origin of the Discrete Log Problem

In the context of **Elliptic Curve Cryptography (ECC)**, the DLP takes a slightly different form, using **scalar multiplication** instead of exponentiation. Here's how it works:

- **Scalar Multiplication**: Given a generator point G on an elliptic curve and an integer k, scalar multiplication involves adding the point G to itself k times. The result is a new point $Q = kG$ on the elliptic curve. This operation is analogous to exponentiation in finite field cryptography.

- The **Elliptic Curve Discrete Logarithm Problem (ECDLP)** can be stated as follows:
  - Given two points on an elliptic curve, G and Q, where $Q = kG$, find the integer k.
  - In other words, the problem is to find k (the scalar) such that Q is the result of multiplying G by k, i.e., $Q = kG$.

Discrete Log Problem Illustration

The key to making scalar multiplication into public key cryptography is using the fact that scalar multiplication on elliptic curves is very hard to reverse. Note the previous exercise.

Let's calculated the point $Q = kG = k \cdot (47, 71)$ for different k in F_{223} in python. What can you find?

If you look closely at the numbers, there's no real discernible pattern to the scalar multiplication.

Scalar multiplication looks really random, and that's what gives this equation **asymmetry**. An asymmetric problem is one that's easy to calculate in one direction, but hard to reverse.

Different Orders: Order of the Finite Field

Let's take a look at the elliptic curve equation again:

$$y^2 = x^3 + ax + b \pmod{p}$$

The p represents the **order of the finite field** $\mathbb{F}_p$ over which the elliptic curve is defined.

p is typically a large prime number, and it defines the size of the finite field that determines the number of possible x-coordinates (and corresponding y-coordinates) for points on the curve.

You can think of p as the parameter that defines how large the canvas can be to draw the elliptic curve.

Different Orders: Order of the Elliptic Curve Group

The total number of points on an elliptic curve (including the point at infinity) over $\mathbb{F}_p$ is called the **group order**.

By **Hasse's theorem**, the number of points on an elliptic curve E defined over $\mathbb{F}_p$, denoted $\#E(\mathbb{F}_p)$, is approximately p, but it lies within the following range:

$$p + 1 - 2\sqrt{p} \leq \#E(\mathbb{F}_p) \leq p + 1 + 2\sqrt{p}$$

So, the actual number of points is typically very close to p, but not exactly equal to it. For $p = 2^{256}$, the number of points on the elliptic curve would be close to 2^{256}, but still smaller than 2^{256}.

Different Orders: Order of a Certain Point

Given a generator point G, the number of times you can add G to itself before reaching the point at infinity, O, is called the **order of the point** G.

$$Q = kG = O, \text{ where } k \text{ is the order of the point G.}$$

Q: can you tell me the order of the point G in our previous example?

The total group order is the number of points on the elliptic curve, but an individual point (i.e., G) can lie in a smaller cyclic subgroup. In our case, G belongs to a cyclic subgroup of order 21.

Relationship of different orders: $k \leq \#E(\mathbb{F}_p) \leq p$

Different Orders

Q: among the three orders we discussed, which one is essential to make sure the encryption is strong?

Different Orders

Both the **order of the elliptic curve group** and the **order of the generator point** are crucial for strong encryption.

- **Order of the Elliptic Curve Group**: This is the most critical factor for ensuring security, as it dictates the overall difficulty of the discrete logarithm problem.
- **Order of the Generator Point**: This is also important, as it helps prevent certain types of attacks, like small subgroup attacks.

Well-defined elliptic curves, like *secp256k1* used in Bitcoin, pick the generator point G that generates the largest prime-order subgroup. Actually in *secp256k1* the entire group of points on the curve is the prime-order subgroup.

The Curve for Bitcoin

The definition of an elliptic curve over a finite field is
$y^2 = x^3 + ax + b \pmod{p}$

For the curve used by Bitcoin, *secp256k1*, the parameters are:
(1) $a = 0$, $b = 7$, making the equation $y^2 = x^3 + 7$

(2) $p = 2^{256}–2^{32}–977$

(3) the generator point (G_x, G_y):
$G_x =$
0x79be667ef9dcbbac55a06295ce870b07029bfcdb2dce28d959f2815b16f81798
$G_y =$
0x483ada7726a3c4655da4fbfc0e1108a8fd17b448a68554199c47d08ffb10d4b8

(4) order of the generator point:
$n =$ 0xfffffffffffffffffffffffffffffebaaedce6af48a03bbfd25e8cd0364141

What is the $0x$?

Values that begin with $0x$ are hexadecimal (base-16) numbers.

In computer science and digital electronics, hexadecimal numbers are often used because they provide a more human-readable way to represent binary data.

Here's what 0x means:

- $0x$ is a prefix indicating that the number that follows is in hexadecimal format.
- Hexadecimal is a base-16 numeral system, meaning it uses 16 different symbols: 0-9 and A-F.
  - 0-9 represent values from 0 to 9.
  - A, B, C, D, E, F represent values from 10 to 15.

IV. Public Key Cryptography

Public Key Cryptography

Now we finally have the tools that we need to do public key cryptography operations!

The key operation that we need is $P = eG$, which is an asymmetric equation. We can easily compute P when we know e and G, but we cannot easily compute e when we know P and G. This is the discrete log problem described earlier.

Generally, we call e the **private key** and P the **public key**. Note here that the private key is a single 256-bit number and the public key is a coordinate (x,y), where x and y are each 256-bit numbers. G is the generator point predefined by the algorithm.

Here we only discuss using elliptic curve cryptography (ECC) to implement public-key cryptography.

Public-Key Encryption and Private-Key Decryption

Using public-key cryptography to **encrypt** a message with a public key and then **decrypt** it with a private key is a fundamental part of secure communication.

- **Encryption**: The sender uses the **recipient's public key** to encrypt the message. The public key is publicly available, so anyone can encrypt messages for the recipient.
- **Decryption**: The recipient uses their **private key** to decrypt the message. Since the private key is kept secret, only the recipient can decrypt the message.

Encryption Using ECC

1. The sender obtains the recipient's **public key** $P_{\text{pub}} = k \cdot G$, where k is the private key and G is the generator point.
2. Choose a **fresh, secret random scalar** $r \in \{1, \ldots, n-1\}$, where n is the order of G. Compute $R = r \cdot G$.
3. Compute the shared-secret point $S = r \cdot P_{\text{pub}}$. Use a **key derivation function (KDF)** on its encoded x-coordinate to derive a symmetric key K.
4. Encrypt the message using a symmetric encryption scheme (e.g., **AES-GCM**) with key K to produce ciphertext. (*Nonce* and *Authentication Tag* details are omitted here for simplicity. See RFC 5116 for details.)
5. Send R and the ciphertext. Keep r secret.

Decryption Using ECC

1. The recipient receives R and the ciphertext.
2. Compute $S = k \cdot R$ using the recipient's **private key** k.
3. Derive the same symmetric key K from S using the same KDF and encoding as the sender.
4. Use K to decrypt the ciphertext and recover the original message.

Q: Why do the sender and recipient derive the same key?

Hint: $S = r \cdot P_{\text{pub}} = (rk) \cdot G = k \cdot R$

Bitcoin uses public-key cryptography primarily for **digital signatures**.

Signing Procedure

1. The sender chooses the private key e and generate the public key P: $P = eG$
2. The sender chooses a random number k and computes the point $R = k \cdot G$. We only need to track the x coordinate of $R : (r, y)$, let's call it r.
3. The sender then chooses a pair of (u, v) that satisfy the following relationship: $uG + vP = kG$.
4. The sender further hashes the original message (i.e. tx data) into a fixed size string, z.
5. The sender finds a s to make the following equations hold: $u = z/s$ and $v = r/s$
6. Finally, the sender sends out (r, s) as the signature.

Verification Procedure

1. The receiver receives the signature (r, s).
2. The receiver hashes the original tx data into a fixed size string, z.
3. The receiver now can calculate a pair of (u, v) based on $u = z/s$ and $v = r/s$.
4. The receiver can calculate $uG + vP = kG = R : (r', y')$
5. Finally the receiver checks if $r' = r$, if it dose then the signature is verified.

Let's dive in....

Think about the following three questions:

Q1: is there only one pair of (u, v)?

Q2: how to find the s that can satisfy $u = z/s$ and $v = r/s$?

Q3: can the sender send out (r, k) instead of (r, s)?

Q4: can I reuse the k to sign multiple messages?

Let's dive in....

Q1: is there only one pair of (u, v)?

It depends.

We know that: $uG + vP = kG \Rightarrow vP = (k–u)G$

Since $v \neq 0$, we can divide by the scalar multiple v: $P = ((k–u)/v)G$

If we know e, we have: $eG = ((k–u)/v)G \Rightarrow v = (k–u)/e$

Hence, since the sender knows the private key e, it is quite easy for her to generate as many pairs of qualified (u, v) as she wish.

However, we also need to make the following equations hold: $u = z/s$ and $v = r/s$, do we still have many qualified pairs of (u, v)?

Let's dive in....

Q1: is there only one pair of (u, v)?

$$\left.\begin{aligned} u &= z/s \\ v &= r/s \end{aligned}\right\} \Rightarrow v = (\frac{r}{z})u$$

and we also know that $v = (k–u)/e$, so given the k, there is only one pair of (u, v) .

Why do we need to generate (u, v) ?

If a person does not know e, it is very difficult to find out a pair of (u, v) that happens to satisfy $uG + vP = kG$.

$uG + vP = kG$ is equivalent to the **discrete log problem**.

Let's dive in....

Q2: how to find the s that can satisfy $u = z/s$ and $v = r/s$?

$$
\begin{aligned}
uG + vP &= R = kG \\
uG + veG &= kG \\
u + ve &= k \\
z/s + re/s &= k \\
(z + re)/s &= k \\
s &= (z + re)/k
\end{aligned}
$$

Here you can see, if you want to easily find out the right s, you also need to know the private key e.

Let's dive in....

Q3: can the sender send out (r, k) instead of (r, s)?

Nope. After receiving (r, k), the receiver can calculate (u, v), then we have:

$$\begin{aligned} uG + vP &= R \\ uG + veG &= kG \\ kG – uG &= veG \\ (k – u)G &= veG \\ (k – u) &= ve \\ (k – u)/v &= e \end{aligned}$$

So the receiver can back out the sender's private key e.

Let's dive in....

Q4: can I reuse the k to sign multiple messages?

Nope, you shouldn't! Suppose you reuse k to sing two messages, whose hash values are z_1 and z_2, then:

$$\begin{aligned} s_1 = (z_1 + re)/k, s_2 = (z_2 + re)/k \\ s_1/s_2 = (z_1 + re)/(z_2 + re) \\ s_1(z_2 + re) = s_2(z_1 + re) \\ s_1 re - s_2 re = s_2 z_1 - s_1 z_2 \\ e = (s_2 z_1 - s_1 z_2)/(r s_1 - r s_2) \end{aligned}$$

Now the receiver can back out the sender's private key e.

Programming: Sign and Verification

Program 1: verify whether the signatures are valid.

```
P = (0x887387e452b8eacc4acfde10d9aaf7f6d9a0f975aabb10d006e4da568744d06c,
0x61de6d95231cd89026e286df3b6ae4a894a3378e393e93a0f45b666329a0ae34)

# signature 1
z = 0xec208baa0fc1c19f708a9ca96fdeff3ac3f230bb4a7ba4aede4942ad003c0f60
r = 0xac8d1c87e51d0d441be8b3dd5b05c8795b48875dffe00b7ffcfac23010d3a395
s = 0x68342ceff8935ededd102dd876ffd6ba72d6a427a3edb13d26eb0781cb423c4

# signature 2
z = 0x7c076ff316692a3d7eb3c3bb0f8b1488cf72e1afcd929e29307032997a838a3d
r = 0xeff69ef2b1bd93a66ed5219add4fb51e11a840f404876325a1e8ffe0529a2c
s = 0xc7207fee197d27c618aea621406f6bf5ef6fca38681d82b2f06fddbdce6feab6
```

Let's code it out in python.

Programming: Sign and Verification

Program 2: Sign a message.

```
# Sign the following message z with the private key e:

e = 12345
z = int.from_bytes(hash256('Programming Bitcoin!'), 'big')
```

Let's code it out in python.

V. From Keys to Addresses

Key, Address and Signature

In this section, we discuss the following three topics:

- Key Serialization & Compression
- Address Generation
- Signature Serialization

Private Key Compression

Generally, we are not going to need to serialize our private key that often, as it does not get broadcast. If you do want to compress your private key, you can use Wallet Import Format (WIF).

Here is how the WIF format is created:

1. For mainnet, start with the prefix $0x80$, for testnet $0xef$.
2. Encode the secret in 32-byte big-endian.
3. If the SEC format used for the public key address was compressed, add a suffix of $0x01$.
4. Combine the prefix from step 1, serialized secret from step 2, and suffix from step 3.
5. Do a hash256 of the result from step 4 and get the first 4 bytes.
6. Take the combination of step 4 and step 5 and encode it in Base58.

Private Key in Different Formats

The same private key can be represented in different formats. All formats represent the same information.

Binary:

0b10101001111001110111001111001100001110001000100111101110111100011110
11110101111010000000000100111011010100001010001101000000110110100010110
01011100010111110100010000011111001110010110000110000001011110000111010
01001000010110011011100011000110101111111000100

Decimal:

0d76849812289149058263224417812572824903208647804215769248087173824188
514746308

Hexadecimal:

0xa9e773cc3889eef1ef5e8013b50a340da2cb8be883e72c302f0e4859b8c6bfc4

Base58Check(WIF):

5K77Z5r3E8UuHGE2eTK6FthfR3mSrmx7ri3CvAp2fCUKxPGUYgf

Extra Source: learn me a bitcoin: keys

Compressed Private Keys

Private keys themsleves cannot be compressed.

The term *compressed private key* really manes "private key from which only compressed public keys should be derived".

Hexadecimal:
1E99423A4ED27608A15A2616A2B0E9E52CED330AC530EDCC32C8FFC6A526AEDD

Hex-compressed:
1E99423A4ED27608A15A2616A2B0E9E52CED330AC530EDCC32C8FFC6A526AEDD01

WIF:
5J3mBbAH58CpQ3Y5RNJpUKPE62SQ5tfcvU2JpbnkeyhfsYB1Jcn

WIF-compressed:
KxFC1jmwwCoACiCAWZ3eXa96mBM6tb3TYzGmf6YwgdGWZgawvrtJ

Source: Antonopoulos, Andreas M., and David A. Harding. *Mastering Bitcoin: Programming the open blockchain.* O'Reilly Media, 2023.

Public Key Serialization

Bitcoin uses Elliptic Curve Digital Signature Algorithm (**ECDSA**) to create secure key pairs (private and public keys) that enable users to sign transactions and authenticate messages securely.

The raw public key is just two large integers (x, y), and different systems may interpret or store them in various ways. This can lead to compatibility issues. So we introduce the concept of **serialization**. Serialization not only addresses incompatibility issues but also reduces the amount of data in transactions.

There is a standard for serializing ECDSA public keys, called Standards for Efficient Cryptography (**SEC**), and there are two forms of SEC format: *uncompressed* and *compressed*.

Public Key: Uncompressed SEC Format

Here is how the uncompressed SEC format for a given point $P = (x, y)$ is generated:

- Start with the prefix byte, which is $0x04$.
- Next, append the x coordinate in 32 bytes.
- Finally, append the y coordinate in 32 bytes

Total Length: 65 bytes (1-byte prefix + 32-byte x-coordinate + 32-byte y-coordinate).

```
047211a824f55b505228e4c3d5194c1fcfaa15a456abdf37f9b9d97a4040afc073dee6c8906498
4f03385237d92167c13e236446b417ab79a0fcae412ae3316b77

- 04 - Marker
- x coordinate - 32 bytes
- y coordinate - 32 bytes
```

Figure 3: Uncompressed SEC format

Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Public Key: Compressed SEC Format

On the elliptic curve, there are the only two solutions for a given x, so if we know x, we know the y coordinate has to be either y or $p–y$ (recall: $-y\%p = (p–y)\%p$).

Since p is a prime number greater than 2, we know that p is odd. Thus, if y is even, $p–y$ must be odd, vice versa.

Hence, the x **coordinate** and the **evenness of the** y **coordinate** are sufficient to describe the point (x, y), and this is the idea behind the compressed SEC format.

Public Key: Compressed SEC Format

Here is the serialization of the compressed SEC format for a given point $P = (x, y)$:

- Start with the prefix byte. If y is even, it's $0x02$; otherwise, it's $0x03$.
- Next, append the x coordinate in 32 bytes.

Total Length: 33 bytes (1-byte prefix + 32-byte x-coordinate).

```
0349fc4e631e3624a545de3f89f5d8684c7b8138bd94bdd531d2e213bf016b278a

        - 02 if y is even, 03 if odd - Marker
        - x coordinate - 32 bytes
```

Figure 4: Compressed SEC format

Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.

Public Key: Compressed SEC Format

One more question!

Calculating y given the x coordinate requires us to calculate a square root in a finite field. How to do that?

It turns out that if the finite field prime $p\%4 = 3$, the solution is easy:

$p\%4 = 3 \Rightarrow (p+1)\%4 = 0 \Rightarrow (p+1)/4$ is an integer.

Public Key: Compressed SEC Format

Let's try to solve $w =?$ if $w^2 = v$:

1. From Fermat's little theorem: $w^{p-1}\%p = 1$, we can get that: $w^2 = w^2 \cdot 1 = w^2 \cdot w^{p-1} = w^{p+1}$
2. Since p is odd (recall p is prime), we know we can divide $p+1$ by 2 and still get an integer, implying: $w = w^{(p+1)/2}$
3. Now we can rewrite it as: $w = w^{(p+1)/2} = w^{2(p+1)/4} = (w^2)^{(p+1)/4} = v^{(p+1)/4}$
4. There are two possible $w's$: $w = v^{(p+1)/4}$ or $w = p - v^{(p+1)/4}$

No surprise, the p used in secp256k1 is such that $p\%4 == 3$, so we can use the above formula (i.e., $w^2 = v \Rightarrow w = v^{(p+1)/4}$ or $p - v^{(p+1)/4}$) in Bitcoin.

Convert Public Key into Address

1. **Public Key Bytes:**
   - Use compressed SEC format (33 bytes) or uncompressed SEC format (65 bytes).
2. **SHA-256 Hash:**
   - Hash the public key bytes to obtain a 32-byte result.
   - sha256_hash = SHA256(public_key_bytes)
3. **RIPEMD-160 Hash:**
   - Hash the SHA-256 result bytes.
   - public_key_hash = RIPEMD160(sha256_hash)
   - **Result:** A 20-byte public key hash (PKH).

All inputs and hash results here are **bytes**. Hexadecimal is a way to display them.

Public Key to Address (1): Base58Check Encoding

1. **Add Version Byte:**
   - Use `0x00` for mainnet or `0x6f` for testnet.
   - versioned_data = version_byte ‖ public_key_hash
   - **Result:** 21 bytes (1 version byte + 20 hash bytes).
2. **Compute the Checksum:**
   - Hash the 21 bytes with SHA-256 twice; keep the first 4 bytes.
   - checksum = SHA256(SHA256(versioned_data))[0:4]
   - The checksum helps detect typing errors.
3. **Join the Address Bytes:**
   - address_bytes = versioned_data ‖ checksum
   - **Result:** 25 bytes (1 version + 20 hash + 4 checksum).

‖ means **join the bytes**, rather than add their numerical values.

Public Key to Address (1): Base58Check Encoding

4. **Final Base58 Conversion:**
   - Convert the 25 bytes from step 6 into Base58 text. The checksum is already included.
   - bitcoin_address = Base58Encode(address_bytes)
   - **Alphabet:** 58 characters; `0`, `O`, `I`, and `l` are excluded.
   - Steps 4–7 together form the full **Base58Check** procedure.

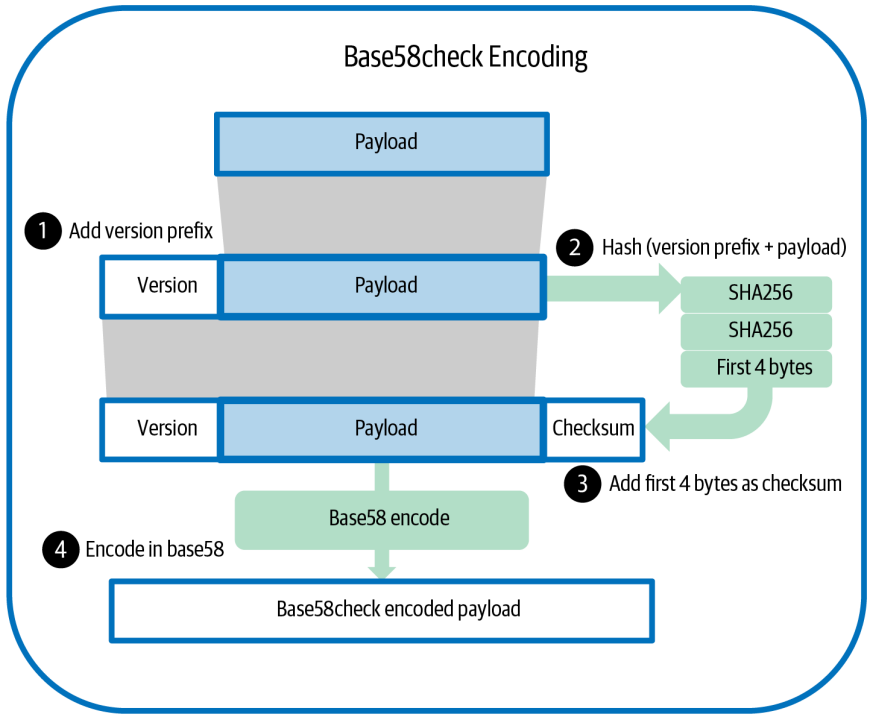


Figure 5: Base58Check Encoding

Source: Antonopoulos, Andreas M., and David A. Harding. *Mastering Bitcoin: Programming the open blockchain.* O'Reilly Media, 2023.

Base58Check Encoding: P2PKH Address

P2PKH stands for Pay-to-Public-Key-Hash. The address contains a hash of a public key.

1. **Obtain the public key:** Let K be the public key written as bytes.
2. **Compute the public key hash:** Calculate a 20-byte hash:

$$h = \text{HASH160}(K) = \text{RIPEMD160}(\text{SHA256}(K)).$$

3. **Apply Base58Check:** Add `0x00` at the front on mainnet (`0x6f` on testnet), add the 4-byte checksum at the end, and Base58-encode.

The address starts with `1` on mainnet (`m` or `n` on testnet). Spending requires the matching public key and a valid signature.

P2PKH Address: Public Key to Address

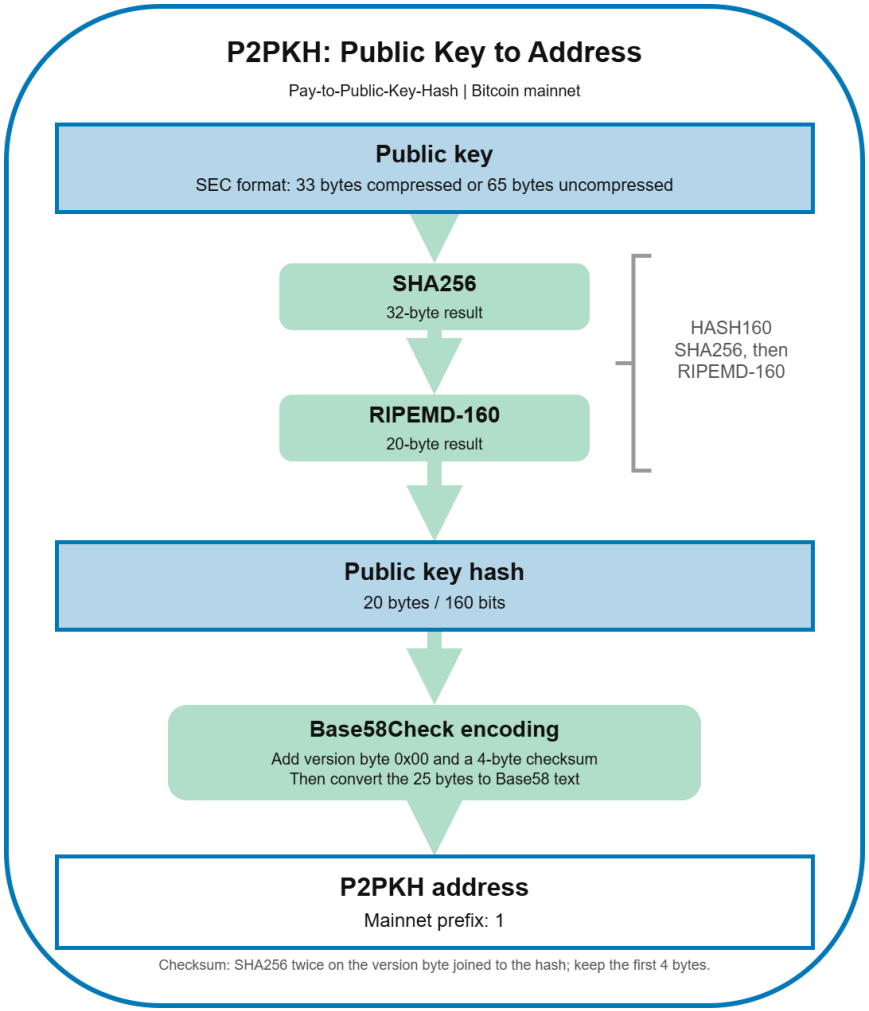


Figure 6: P2PKH Address: Public Key to P2PKH Address

Base58Check Encoding: P2SH Address

P2SH stands for Pay-to-Script-Hash. The address contains a hash of the script that sets the conditions for spending the bitcoins.

1. **Choose a redeem script:** Let S be the script written as bytes, for example, one requiring two signatures.
2. **Compute the script hash:** Calculate a 20-byte hash:

$$h = \text{HASH160}(S) = \text{RIPEMD160}(\text{SHA256}(S)).$$

3. **Apply Base58Check:** Add `0x05` at the front on mainnet (`0xc4` on testnet), add the 4-byte checksum at the end, and Base58-encode.

The resulting address starts with `3` on mainnet and `2` on testnet. P2SH supports *multisignature*.

P2SH Address: Script to Address

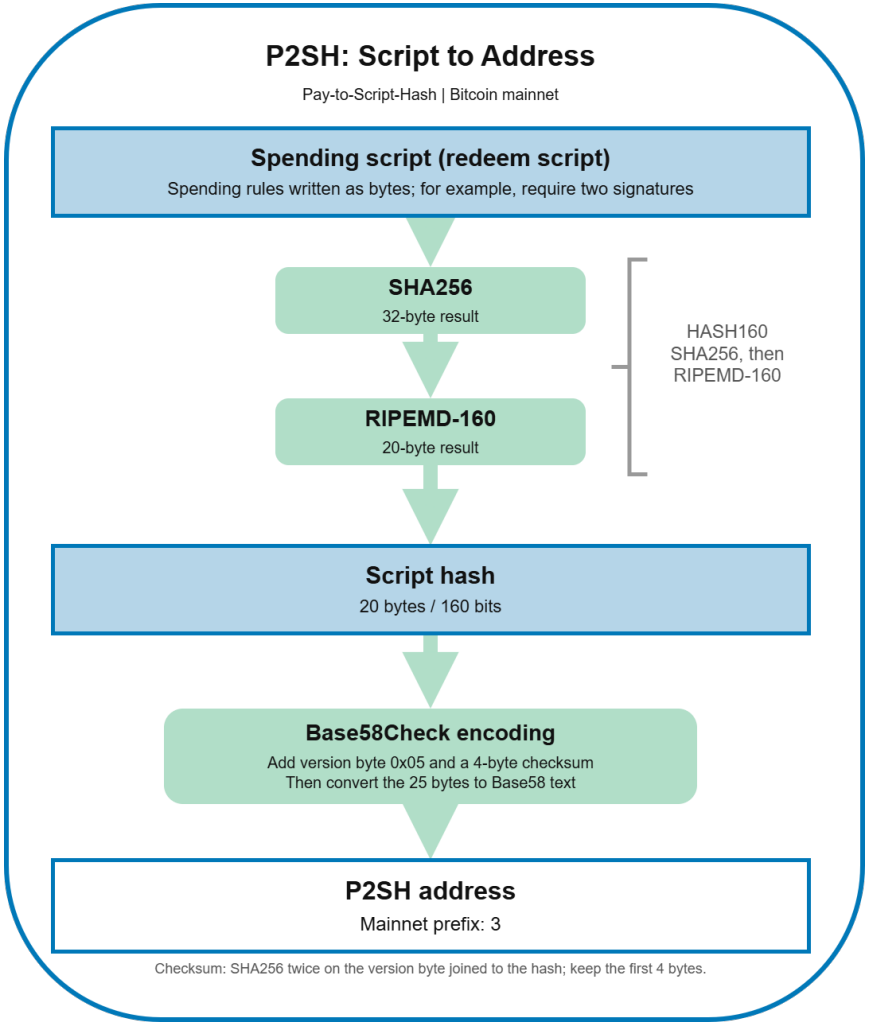
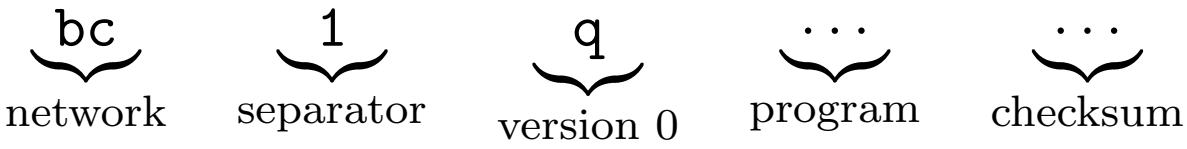


Figure 7: P2SH Address: Script to P2SH Address

Public Key to Address (2): Bech32 Encoding

Bech32 uses a 32-character alphabet to encode native SegWit version 0 addresses. A mainnet address has the following structure:



1. **Network:** Use `bc` for mainnet or `tb` for testnet, followed by the separator `1`.
2. **Data:** Encode version 0 as `q`. Convert the witness program's bytes into 5-bit groups and map them to the alphabet.
3. **Checksum:** Append six characters computed from the network prefix and data. It detects up to four character substitutions.

Use one letter case: lowercase is widely used, uppercase is also valid. **Mixed case is invalid.**

Extra: What is SegWit?

SegWit (Segregated Witness) separates the proof needed to spend bitcoins from the data used to calculate the **transaction ID (txid)**.

- **The problem:** Some signature changes could keep a payment valid but change its txid, breaking transactions that refer to it (*transaction malleability*).
- **The solution:** The proof is stored separately as the *witness*, so changes to it do not change the txid.
- **More capacity:** Witness bytes count less toward the block limit, allowing more transactions to fit in a block.

SegWit's rules give witness data a discount when calculating the block limit. The data is still **stored on the blockchain** and checked by the network's computers.

Extra: Witness and Witness Program

Both are **recorded on the blockchain**, in different parts of transactions:

- **Witness program:** A small piece of data (2–40 bytes) inside an *output's locking script*. Its version tells the network's computers how to check a spend.
- **Witness:** The proof included in the *spending input*, such as signatures and public keys, showing that the spending condition is met.

The **output records the spending condition**; the **spending input supplies the proof** that it is met.

Extra: SegWit, Witness Program and Witness

For payments using Bech32 or Bech32m addresses:

Concept	Role
SegWit	Bitcoin upgrade that changes how spending proof is stored and checked.
Witness program (+ version)	Recorded in the **output**; identifies the condition for spending it.
Witness	Recorded in the **spending input**; provides proof that the condition is met.

The witness program and witness are both **recorded on the blockchain**.

Source: BIP 141: Segregated Witness.

Problems with Bech32 Addresses

Bech32's guarantee covers up to four **character substitutions**. Inserting or deleting characters changes the address length.

- **Insertion weakness:** If a Bech32 string ends in `p`, adding or removing `q` immediately before it can leave the checksum valid.

$$\texttt{...qp} \longrightarrow \texttt{...qqp} \longrightarrow \texttt{...qqqp}$$

- **Version 0:** P2WPKH and P2WSH addresses have fixed lengths of 42 and 62 characters. A one-character insertion fails the length check.

- **Later versions:** New output types may use other program lengths. They need a checksum that addresses this weakness without fixed-length restrictions.

Public Key to Address (3): Bech32m Encoding

Bech32m keeps the Bech32 address structure and modifies the checksum to address the insertion weakness.

- **Modified constant:** The final checksum constant changes from `1` to `0x2bc830a3`. This revision improves the checksum's ability to detect insertions and deletions.
- **Version rule:** Version 0 uses **Bech32**; versions 1–16 use **Bech32m**. Taproot uses version 1, encoded as `p`.
- **Validation:** Wallets check that the checksum type matches the witness version. The two encodings cannot be used interchangeably.

Source: Mastering Bitcoin, Chapter 4; BIP 350.

Native SegWit: P2WPKH, P2WSH, P2TR

- **P2WPKH**: Pay-to-Witness-Public-Key-Hash.
- **P2WSH**: Pay-to-Witness-Script-Hash.
- **P2TR**: Pay-to-Taproot.

Type	**Version**	**Witness program**	**Mainnet address**
P2WPKH	0	20-byte public key hash HASH160(K)	Bech32 `bc1q...`
P2WSH	0	32-byte script hash SHA256(S)	Bech32 `bc1q...`
P2TR	1	32-byte x-only output key $x(Q)$	Bech32m `bc1p...`

K: public key bytes; S: witness script; Q: Taproot output key.

Source: Mastering Bitcoin, Chapter 4; BIP 141; BIP 341; BIP 350.

P2WPKH VS. P2WSH VS. P2TR

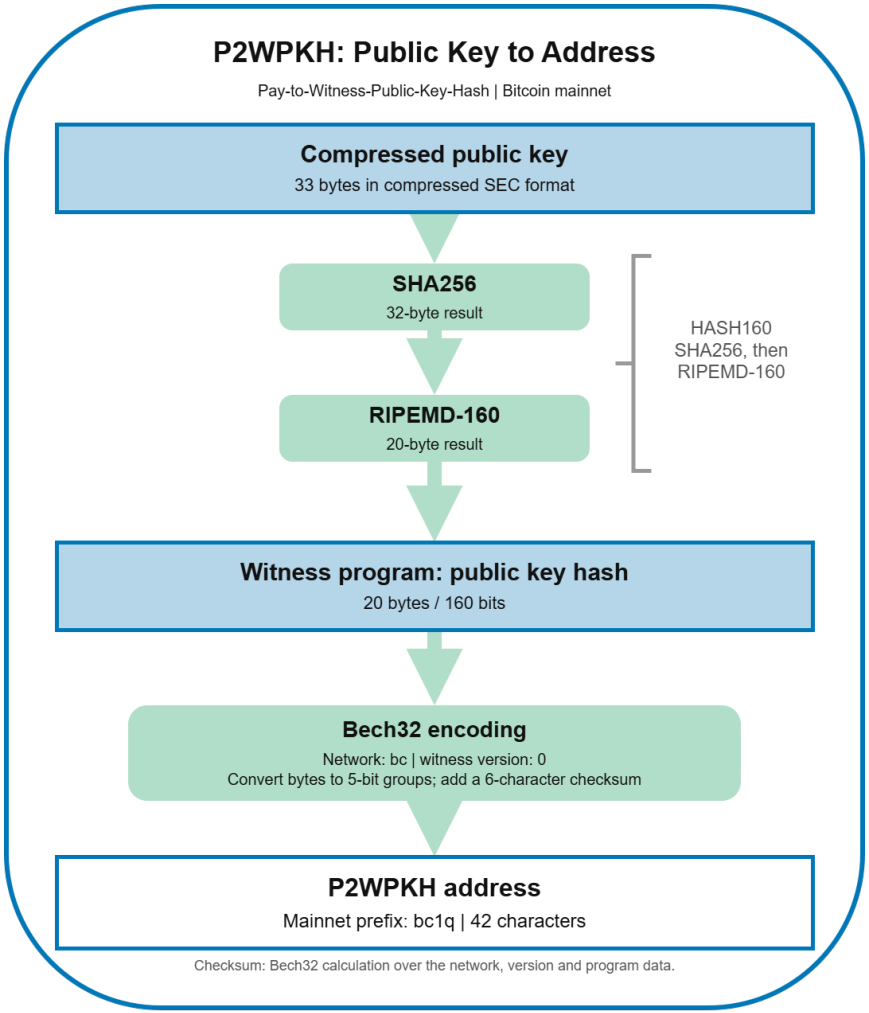


Figure 8: P2WPKH

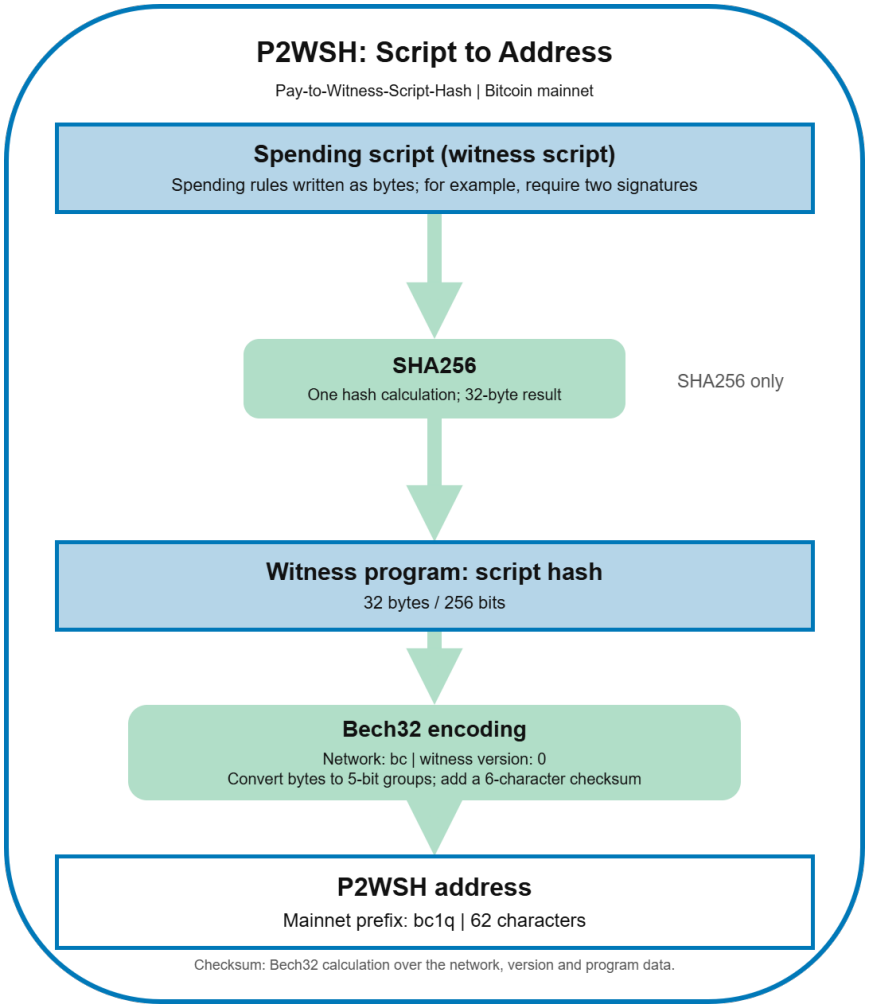


Figure 9: P2WSH

P2WPKH VS. P2WSH VS. P2TR

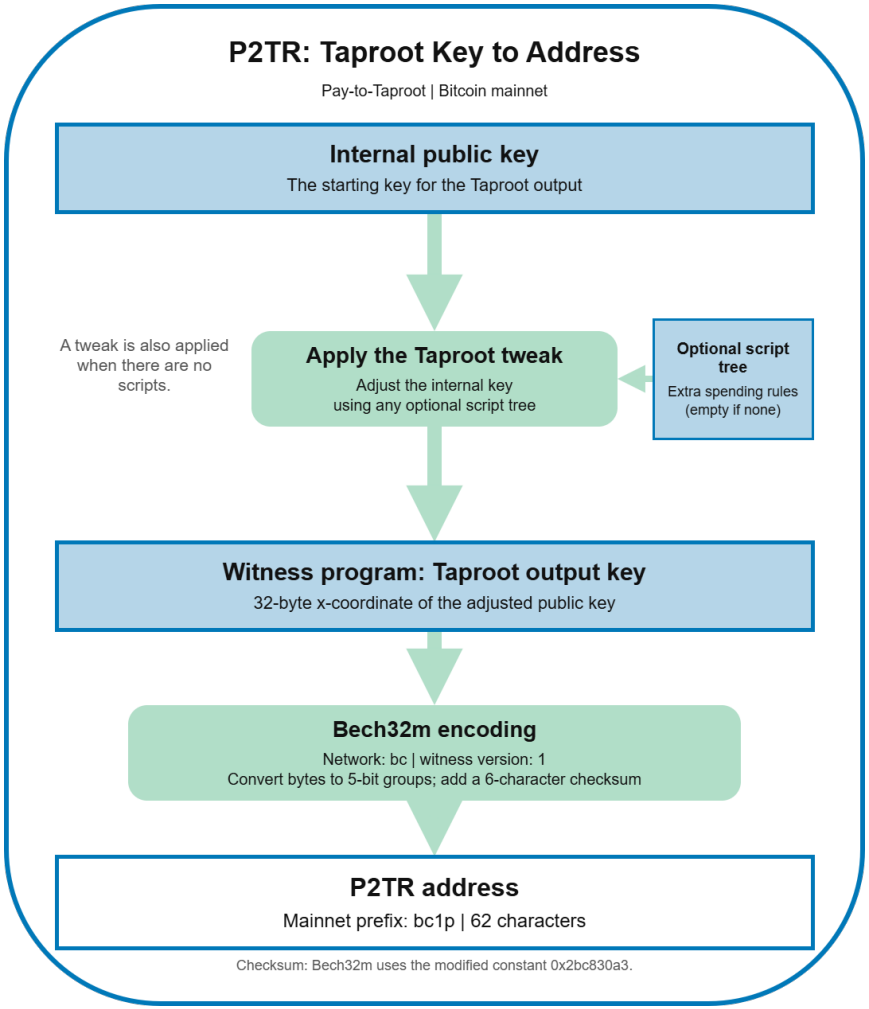


Figure 10: P2TR

Public Key Security Consideration

The private keys are numbers selected from a closed (although very large, approximately 2^{256}) set, would two people choose the same private key, then have unrestricted access to a jointly owned address?

The number of private keys is approximately 2^{256}, but the number of possible Bitcoin addresses is approximately 2^{160}. Could two public keys generated from different private keys end up with the same hash value and thus the same address?

Public Key Security Consideration

To answer the first question, let's first consider the situation that we want to find a private key for a specific address.

The probability of finding a private key to the given address in a single attempt is $\frac{1}{2^{160}}$.

If we assume that the person can generate 60 billion key/address pairs per second, then he would need over 7×10^{27} years to find the corresponding private key with a 1 percent probability.

The age of the universe is estimated at 13.82×10^9 years.

Public Key Security Consideration

Now what if we just want to find a key for any address with a positive balance?

Let's assume that the 2.1×10^7 Bitcoin units are divided into 2.1×10^{15} satoshi and kept in different addresses. Then we have at most 2.1×10^{15} addresses with a positive balance.

Hence, the probability that a person would find an address with a positive balance in a single attempt is $\frac{2.1 \times 10^{15}}{2^{160}}$. This person still needs almost 3.7×10^{12} years to obtain control over one such address with a 1 percent probability.

Considering the computational power he is going to waste in the 3.7×10^{12} years for merely 1 satoshi reward, it is definitely not a smart investment.

Public Key Security Consideration

The second question is related to a well-known problem in mathematics usually referred to as the birthday paradox.

andytoshi shows that to reach the probability of a collision occurring at 99.9999%, we should have generated at least 6.35×10^{24} bitcoin addresses.

If every person on earth decide to generate bitcoin addresses nonstop, it would still take more than 300 years to reach that amount of addresses.

Signature Serialization

The standard for serializing signatures is called Distinguished Encoding Rules (**DER**) format.

DER signature format is defined like this:

1. Start with the $0x30$ byte.
2. Encode the length of the rest of the signature (usually $0x44$ or $0x45$) and append.
3. Append the marker byte, $0x02$.
4. Encode r, prepend it with the $0x00$ byte if r's first byte $\geq 0x80$ to indicate it is a positive integer.
5. Append the marker byte, $0x02$.
6. Encode s, prepend with the $0x00$ byte if s's first byte $\geq 0x80$ to indicate it is a positive integer.

Signature Serialization

```
3045022100ed81ff192e75a3fd2304004dcadb746fa5e24c5031ccfcf213
20b0277457c98f02207a986d955c6e0cb35d446a89d3f56100f4d7f67801
c31967743a9c8e10615bed
```

- 30 - Marker
- 45 - Length of sig
- 02 - Marker for r value
- 21 - r value lenth
- 00ed...8f - r value
- 02 - Marker for s value
- 20 - s value length
- 7a98...ed - s value

Figure 11: Signature Serialization: DER Format

Source: Song, Jimmy. *Programming bitcoin: Learn how to program bitcoin from scratch.* O'Reilly Media, 2019.